

System F and Polymorphism

Lecture 11

Section 1

Recap

Where we left off

STLC computes only extended polynomials (Schwichtenberg). No exponentiation, no recursion.

Gödel's fix: **System T**. Add Nat, 0, S, and a typed recursor $R_C : C \rightarrow (\text{Nat} \rightarrow C \rightarrow C) \rightarrow \text{Nat} \rightarrow C$.

Gödel (1958)

System T captures exactly the provably total functions of PA — far beyond primitive recursion (e.g. Ackermann).

But System T **left the pure lambda calculus** (added constructors, pattern matching) and its connection to PA is **indirect** (via the Dialectica interpretation, not Curry–Howard).

Today's question

Diagnosis	Fix	Status
No data or recursion	System T: add $\text{Nat} + \text{R}$	done
No generality over types	???	today

Can we increase computational power
by enriching the **logic**
rather than adding computational primitives?

Section 2

System F

The idea

STLC = propositional logic. No quantifiers.

The natural enrichment: **quantify over types**.

$\forall \alpha. \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ as a proposition: “for all propositions α , α implies α .”

A proof: a function that works at *every* type.

$$\Lambda \alpha. \lambda x:\alpha. x \quad : \quad \forall \alpha. \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$$

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Two new operations, both instances of abstraction/application:

- **Type abstraction:** $\Lambda\alpha. t$ and **type application:** $t \llbracket A \rrbracket$

New reduction: $(\Lambda\alpha. t) \llbracket A \rrbracket \longrightarrow_{\beta} t[\alpha := A]$

β -reduction at the type level, exactly parallel to $(\lambda x. t) s \rightarrow_{\beta} t[x := s]$.

Typing rules

Types: $A, B ::= \alpha \mid A \rightarrow B \mid \forall \alpha. A$

Terms: $t, s ::= x \mid \lambda x:A. t \mid t s \mid \Lambda \alpha. t \mid t \llbracket A \rrbracket$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t : A \quad \alpha \text{ not free in any type in } \Gamma}{\Gamma \vdash \Lambda \alpha. t : \forall \alpha. A} \quad (\forall\text{-I})$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t : \forall \alpha. A}{\Gamma \vdash t \llbracket B \rrbracket : A[\alpha := B]} \quad (\forall\text{-E})$$

Why the side condition? Without it, from $x:\alpha \vdash x : \alpha$ we could conclude $x:\alpha \vdash \Lambda \alpha. x : \forall \alpha. \alpha$. But $\forall \alpha. \alpha$ is the empty type $\perp$ — we would derive contradiction from any assumption. The side condition prevents quantifying over a variable our assumptions depend on.

What is second-order propositional logic?

Propositional logic: atomic propositions $p, q, r, \dots$ combined with $\rightarrow, \wedge, \vee, \perp$. The connectives are **primitive**: each has its own rules.

Second-order: add $\forall \alpha. A$, where α ranges over *propositions*. We can now say “for all propositions α , ...”

Intuitionistic: constructive (no law of excluded middle). Same as STLC.

A key fact: in second-order propositional logic, $\wedge, \vee, \perp$, and $\exists$ are **definable** from $\forall$ and $\rightarrow$ alone:

$$\begin{aligned}\perp &\equiv \forall \alpha. \alpha \\ A \wedge B &\equiv \forall \alpha. (A \rightarrow B \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha \\ A \vee B &\equiv \forall \alpha. (A \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow (B \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha \\ \exists \alpha. A &\equiv \forall \beta. (\forall \alpha. A \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \beta\end{aligned}$$

Why the encodings work: $\perp$ and $\wedge$

Each encoding says: “to produce *any* result α , it suffices to...”

$\perp \equiv \forall \alpha. \alpha$: “I can produce any α you ask for, from nothing.” No function can do this — there is no way to manufacture a value of an arbitrary unknown type. So $\perp$ has no proof.

$A \wedge B \equiv \forall \alpha. (A \rightarrow B \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha$: “Give me any way to combine an A and a B into an α , and I’ll produce that α for you.” This is what it means to hold a pair: you have the two components, and you can feed them to any function.

$\text{pair } a \ b = \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f:A \rightarrow B \rightarrow \alpha. f \ a \ b$ $\{(\text{store } a, b; \text{ apply any } f)\}$

$\text{fst } p = p \llbracket A \rrbracket (\lambda a:A. \lambda b:B. a)$ $\{(\text{use } f \text{ that keeps the first})\}$

Check:

$\text{fst } (\text{pair } a \ b) = (\Lambda \alpha. \lambda f. f \ a \ b) \llbracket A \rrbracket (\lambda a. \lambda b. a) \rightarrow_{\beta} (\lambda f. f \ a \ b) (\lambda a. \lambda b. a) \rightarrow_{\beta} a.$

Why the encodings work: $\vee$

$A \vee B \equiv \forall \alpha. (A \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow (B \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha$: “Give me a handler for the A case and a handler for the B case, and I’ll run the right one.” This is case analysis.

$\text{inl } a = \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f:A \rightarrow \alpha. \lambda g:B \rightarrow \alpha. f \ a$ $\{(\text{left injection: use the } f \text{ handler})\}$

$\text{inr } b = \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f:A \rightarrow \alpha. \lambda g:B \rightarrow \alpha. g \ b$ $\{(\text{right injection: use the } g \text{ handler})\}$

Check: inl ignores g entirely and just applies f to a . The caller provides both handlers, not knowing which one will be used — exactly how disjunction works.

Why the encodings work: $\exists$

$$\exists \alpha. A \equiv \forall \beta. (\forall \alpha. A \rightarrow \beta) \rightarrow \beta$$

Read this type carefully. The **producer** (the one who inhabits this type) must:

- Accept any result type β (the outer $\forall \beta$)
- Accept a **consumer** $k : \forall \alpha. A \rightarrow \beta$ that works for *all* choices of α
- Produce a β

The producer has a *specific* type C in mind (the witness) and a proof $t : A[\alpha := C]$. Read this as: “ C is my example of α , and t is my evidence that A holds for this choice.”

$$\text{pack } [C, t] = \Lambda \beta. \lambda k. (\forall \alpha. A \rightarrow \beta). k \llbracket C \rrbracket t$$

The key asymmetry: the *producer* chooses C , but the *consumer* k must handle *all possible* α . So k cannot inspect which type was packed. This is exactly “there exists an α , but I won’t say which.”

The Curry–Howard correspondence

Claim: erasing term annotations from a System F typing derivation yields a proof in second-order intuitionistic propositional logic. A derivation **is** a proof.

Example: proof of $\forall\alpha. \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$:

Typing	Rule	Logic (erase terms)
$x : \alpha \vdash x : \alpha$	var	$\alpha \vdash \alpha$
$\vdash \lambda x:\alpha. x : \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$	$\rightarrow$ -I	$\vdash \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$
$\vdash \Lambda\alpha. \lambda x:\alpha. x : \forall\alpha. \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$	$\forall$ -I	$\vdash \forall\alpha. \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$

This works in general: every typing rule of System F *is* a logical rule (with proof terms attached). Conversely, every proof in second-order intuitionistic propositional logic can be decorated with terms to give a typing derivation. The connective definitions on the previous slide let us *derive* their intro/elim rules within the system.

Section 3

Recovering System T

Can we recover System T?

System T added Nat, 0, S, and a recursor R as **primitives**. Can System F **define** them using only Λ and $\llbracket \cdot \rrbracket$?

Church numerals:

$$\text{Nat} \equiv \forall \alpha. (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$$

“For any type α , given a step function $f : \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$ and a starting point $x : \alpha$, produce an α .” The numeral $\bar{n}$ iterates f exactly n times.

$$\bar{0} = \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f : \alpha \rightarrow \alpha. \lambda x : \alpha. x$$

$$\bar{n} = \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f : \alpha \rightarrow \alpha. \lambda x : \alpha. f^n x$$

$$S = \lambda n : \text{Nat}. \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f : \alpha \rightarrow \alpha. \lambda x : \alpha. f (n \llbracket \alpha \rrbracket f x)$$

What the recursor does and why

Church numerals give **iteration**: $\bar{n} \llbracket C \rrbracket f x = f^n(x)$. The step function $f : C \rightarrow C$ sees only the accumulated value.

But many definitions need to know *which* step they're on. In Lean 4:

```
Nat.rec (motive := fun _ => C) (c : C) (h : Nat -> C -> C)
      (n : Nat) : C
```

This is System T's recursor $R_C : C \rightarrow (\text{Nat} \rightarrow C \rightarrow C) \rightarrow \text{Nat} \rightarrow C$:

$R\ c\ h\ \bar{0} = c$ (base case: return c)

$R\ c\ h\ (S\ k) = h\ k\ (R\ c\ h\ k)$ (step: h gets index k and prev. result)

Example: factorial. $c = 1$, $h = \lambda k. \lambda v. (k+1) \times v$. Then
 $R\ 1\ h\ 3 = 3 \times 2 \times 1 = 6$.

Problem: Church numerals only iterate. Can we recover R?

Building the recursor from iteration

Idea: iterate on *pairs* (index, accumulated value).

Define a step function on pairs:

$$\text{step} = \lambda p:\text{Nat} \times C. \text{pair } (S(\text{fst } p)) (h (\text{fst } p) (\text{snd } p))$$

This maps (k, v) to $(k+1, h \ k \ v)$. Each step increments the index and applies h with both the index and the current value — exactly what R needs.

Now iterate step starting from $(\bar{0}, c)$:

$$R \ c \ h \ n = \text{snd} \left(\bar{n} \llbracket \text{Nat} \times C \rrbracket \text{step} (\text{pair } \bar{0} \ c) \right)$$

After n iterations of step, the first component is $\bar{n}$ and the second is $R \ c \ h \ n$. We extract the second component with `snd`.

The pairing trick in action

Trace $R\ c\ h\ \bar{2}$: iterate step twice from $(\bar{0}, c)$.

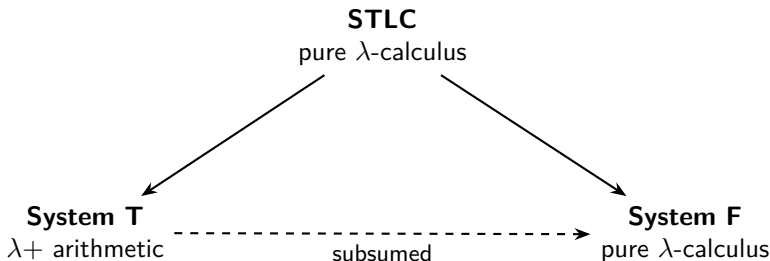
After	Pair	What happened
0 steps	$(\bar{0}, c)$	base case
1 step	$(\bar{1}, h\ \bar{0}\ c)$	step: index $0 \rightarrow 1$, applied $h\ \bar{0}\ c$
2 steps	$(\bar{2}, h\ \bar{1}\ (h\ \bar{0}\ c))$	step: index $1 \rightarrow 2$, applied $h\ \bar{1}$ to prev.

snd of final pair: $h\ \bar{1}\ (h\ \bar{0}\ c) = R\ c\ h\ \bar{2}$.

Pure iteration only sees the accumulated value. By pairing in the index, we give h the information it needs. This is what converts **iteration into recursion**.

System F subsumes System T

	System T	System F
Nat	primitive type	$\forall \alpha. (\alpha \rightarrow \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha \rightarrow \alpha$
0, S	primitive terms	Church-encodable
iteration	primitive combinator R	pairing trick (prev. slides)



No new data types. No pattern matching. Just abstraction/application lifted to the type level.

Section 4

Metatheory

Reduction and normal forms in System F

System F has two β -rules, both in **terms**:

$$(\lambda x:A. t) s \rightarrow_{\beta} t[x := s] \qquad (\Lambda \alpha. t) \llbracket B \rrbracket \rightarrow_{\beta} t[\alpha := B]$$

The second rule *substitutes a type for a type variable inside a term*. It does not “run” anything at the type level: B is spliced in as-is, no further evaluation happens to it. Types have no reduction rules of their own.

A **normal form**: a term containing no subterm of either shape above.

The typing rules, for reference

Five rules. Every well-typed term is built from exactly these:

$$\frac{x : A \in \Gamma}{\Gamma \vdash x : A} \text{ (Var)}$$

$$\frac{\Gamma, x : A \vdash t : B}{\Gamma \vdash \lambda x:A. t : A \rightarrow B} (\rightarrow\text{-I})$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t : A \rightarrow B \quad \Gamma \vdash s : A}{\Gamma \vdash t s : B} (\rightarrow\text{-E})$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t : A \quad \alpha \text{ not free in } \Gamma}{\Gamma \vdash \Lambda \alpha. t : \forall \alpha. A} (\forall\text{-I})$$

$$\frac{\Gamma \vdash t : \forall \alpha. A}{\Gamma \vdash t \llbracket B \rrbracket : A[\alpha := B]} (\forall\text{-E})$$

Rule inversion: if $\Gamma \vdash t : A$, then exactly one of these five rules was used last. The term t and type A tell us which.

Why $\perp = \forall\alpha. \alpha$ is uninhabited

Goal: no closed normal form has type $\forall\alpha. \alpha$.

Step 1 — invert $\vdash t : \forall\alpha. \alpha$. The type is $\forall\alpha. (...)$, so the last rule must be $\forall$ -I. Therefore $t = \Lambda\alpha. s$ and $\vdash s : \alpha$ in the empty context.

Step 2 — invert $\vdash s : \alpha$ (empty context, α is a type *variable*). Check each rule:

- **Var:** $s = x$ with $x : \alpha \in \Gamma$. But Γ is empty. ✗
- $\rightarrow$ -I: $s = \lambda x:B. r$, giving type $B \rightarrow C$. But α is a variable, not $B \rightarrow C$. ✗
- $\forall$ -I: $s = \Lambda\beta. r$, giving type $\forall\beta. D$. But α is a variable, not $\forall\beta. D$. ✗
- $\rightarrow$ -E: $s = f u$ where $f : D \rightarrow \alpha$. In normal form, f must ultimately be headed by a variable. But Γ is empty: no variable is available. ✗
- $\forall$ -E: $s = f \llbracket B \rrbracket$ where $f : \forall\beta. D$. Same problem: f needs a variable head, but none exist. ✗

All five rules fail. No closed normal form of type $\forall\alpha. \alpha$ exists.



Strong normalization and consistency

Theorem (Girard, 1972)

Every well-typed System F term is strongly normalizing.

How this gives consistency (three ingredients):

- 1 **SN**: every well-typed term reduces to a normal form.
- 2 **Subject reduction**: if $\Gamma \vdash t : A$ and $t \rightarrow_{\beta} t'$, then $\Gamma \vdash t' : A$. (Type is preserved under reduction.)
- 3 **Previous slide**: no closed normal form has type $\forall\alpha. \alpha$.

Suppose for contradiction there exists a closed t with $\vdash t : \forall\alpha. \alpha$. By (1), t reduces to a normal form t^* . By (2), $\vdash t^* : \forall\alpha. \alpha$. But (3) says no such t^* exists. Contradiction. So $\forall\alpha. \alpha = \perp$ is uninhabited. (Proof of SN next week.)

PA_2 and the computational characterization

What is PA_2 ? In PA (Peano Arithmetic), induction is an axiom *schema*: one instance per formula. **PA_2 (second-order arithmetic)** adds variables ranging over *subsets* of $\mathbb{N}$ (equivalently, properties of naturals) and quantifies over them with $\forall X$.

Connection to System F: in PA_2 , $\forall X$ ranges over properties of naturals. In System F, $\forall \alpha$ ranges over types. Under Curry–Howard, types *are* propositions, and propositions about naturals *are* properties — so type variables play the role of set variables.

Computational characterization

System F represents exactly the **provably total functions of PA_2** .

PA_2 proves $\text{Con}(\text{PA})$, which PA itself cannot. So System F computes strictly more than System T.

Section 5

The Price of Power

What System F loses

In STLC, three properties hold:

- ① **Type checking**: given t and A , decide whether $\Gamma \vdash t : A$.
- ② **Inhabitation**: given A , decide whether any closed $t : A$ exists.
- ③ **Completeness**: every propositional tautology is provable, hence inhabited.

System F **keeps** (1): type checking is decidable because the term t carries all the information. At each $\Lambda\alpha$, the type variable is bound; at each $t \llbracket B \rrbracket$, the type B is explicitly written. We just verify each rule bottom-up — no search is needed.

System F **loses** (2) and (3). We explain why next.

Why normalization doesn't help

Tempting reasoning: System F is strongly normalizing, so every well-typed term has a normal form, so we can search over normal forms, so inhabitation should be decidable.

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The gap: normalization says that *given* a well-typed term, it reduces to a normal form. It does **not** bound the search space. A normal form of type A can use sub-derivations at types that have nothing to do with A , and there is no bound (from A alone) on the complexity of those types.

In STLC, every type in a normal proof of A is a subformula of A : the type **controls** the proof. In System F, $\forall$ -E lets you instantiate at *any* type B . The proof can detour through types unrelated to the goal.

The search space explodes

In STLC (subformula property): every type appearing in a normal proof of A is a subformula of A . Finitely many subformulas $\Rightarrow$ finitely many candidate terms $\Rightarrow$ enumerate and check.

In System F: the $\forall$ -E rule says $t \llbracket B \rrbracket : A[\alpha := B]$ for *any* type B . When searching for a proof, at each $\forall$ -E step we must **guess** B . But there are infinitely many types to choose from, and the right B might be arbitrarily complex and share nothing with the goal type.

So the search tree has **infinite branching** at every $\forall$ -E step. There is no computable way to prune it: no finite set of candidate types is guaranteed to suffice.

Theorem (Urzyczyn, 1997)

Type inhabitation in System F is **undecidable**.

Incompleteness and the scorecard

System F encodes enough arithmetic to trigger **Gödel's incompleteness theorem**: some types that “should” be inhabited have no closed inhabitant.

	STLC	System T	System F
Normalization			
$\Rightarrow$ consistency			
Decidable type checking			
Decidable inhabitation			X
Completeness		X	X

Why System T inhabitation is decidable

System T types are built from Nat and $\rightarrow$. Every such type is inhabited:

- Nat is inhabited by 0 .
- $A \rightarrow B$ is inhabited by $\lambda x:A. (\text{inhabitant of } B)$, by induction on B .

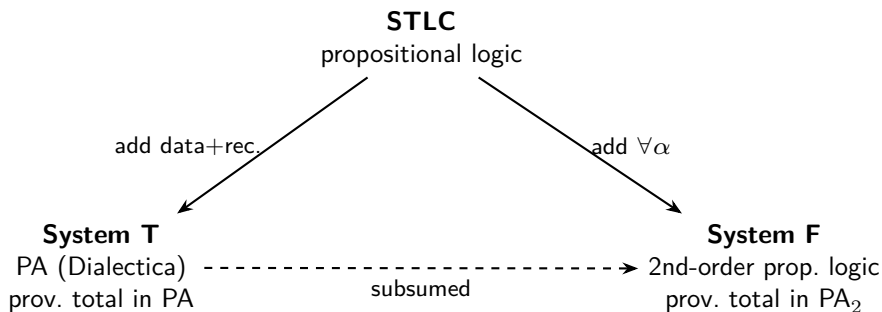
So inhabitation is trivially decidable: the answer is always “yes.”

Caution: this does *not* mean PA is decidable. PA asks whether arithmetic *sentences* are true — a question about $\mathbb{N}$. Inhabitation asks whether a *type* has a closed term — a question about the type system. System T’s type language (Nat , $\rightarrow$) is far too simple to express arbitrary arithmetic.

Section 6

The Big Picture

Two paths from STLC



Left: add computational primitives, gain power, leave the λ -calculus.

Right: enrich the logic, gain strictly more power, stay in the λ -calculus.

Two senses of “System F corresponds to PA_2 ”

Be careful: “System F corresponds to PA_2 ” means two different things, and conflating them is a common mistake.

Claim	What it says
Computational	The functions $\mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ representable in System F are exactly the provably total functions of PA_2 .
Logical	System F types are formulas of 2nd-order <i>propositional</i> logic.

The first is about which *functions* you can compute. The second is about which *statements* you can express as types. Don't conflate them.

Example: $\forall n:\text{Nat}. n + 0 = n$ is **not** a System F type — it quantifies over a term n and uses equality on terms, both of which require dependent types. System F can *compute* $n \mapsto n + 0$, but cannot *state* that this equals the identity.

What System F types cannot say

A proof assistant must *state* specifications as types and *verify* proofs as type-checking. System F can do the verification (decidable type checking), but it cannot state interesting specifications.

In System F, the type of a function says **nothing** about the relationship between input and output *values*:

System F type	What it guarantees
$\text{List Nat} \rightarrow \text{List Nat}$	takes a list, returns a list
$\text{Nat} \rightarrow \text{Nat} \rightarrow \text{Nat}$	takes two numbers, returns a number

Both sorting and reversing have the first type. Both addition and multiplication have the second. The types **cannot distinguish** them.

The root cause: types can't see terms

System F's $\forall\alpha$ quantifies over **types**. It cannot quantify over **terms**.

Quantifier	Ranges over	Available?
$\forall\alpha. A$	types (propositions)	System F
$\forall n:\text{Nat}. P(n)$	terms (individuals)	X

System F is second-order **propositional** logic. But most specifications are **predicate** logic: they say “for all inputs x , the output satisfies $P(x)$.” The word *propositional* is the bottleneck.

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Try encoding “a list of length n ” as a System F type. You cannot: n is a term, and System F types cannot mention terms.

What we want: types that mention values

Imagine writing:

$$\text{sort} : \Pi (l : \text{List Nat}). \Sigma (l' : \text{List Nat}). \text{Sorted}(l') \times \text{Perm}(l, l')$$
$$\text{head} : \Pi A. \Pi (n : \text{Nat}). \text{Vec } A \text{ (S } n) \rightarrow A$$
$$\text{append} : \Pi A. \Pi (m \ n : \text{Nat}). \text{Vec } A \ m \rightarrow \text{Vec } A \ n \rightarrow \text{Vec } A \ (m + n)$$

In each case the return type depends on *values*: the input list l , the length n , the sum $m + n$. None of this is expressible in System F, because types cannot mention terms.

This is a **logical necessity**, not a convenience: under Curry–Howard, $\Pi x:A. B(x)$ is $\forall x:A. B(x)$. Without it, we have no predicate logic.

Dependent types: the missing axis

Dependent function type: $\Pi x:A. B(x)$ — “given $x : A$, return something of type $B(x)$, where B may mention x .”

$$\begin{array}{ll} \lambda x:A. t & \longleftrightarrow \quad \forall\text{-intro (over individuals)} \\ t \ a & \longleftrightarrow \quad \forall\text{-elim (instantiate with a term)} \end{array}$$

Logic	Quantification	Type system
Propositional	none	STLC
2nd-order propositional	over propositions	System F
Predicate / higher-order	over individuals	dep. types (CC)

Combining $\forall\alpha$ (System F) with $\Pi x:A. B(x)$ (dependent types) gives the **Calculus of Constructions** — the foundation of Coq and Lean.

The lambda cube and what's next

Barendregt: type systems differ by which entities can depend on which.

Dependency	Meaning	System
terms on terms	functions	STLC ($\lambda \rightarrow$)
terms on types	polymorphism	System F ($\lambda 2$)
types on types	type operators	F_ω
types on terms	dependent types	LF (λP)

Three independent switches $\Rightarrow 2^3 = 8$ systems forming a cube. All switches on = **Calculus of Constructions** (CC). CC + inductive types = CIC (Coq, Lean).

Next week: type safety for System F; SN of System T (Tait); SN of System F (why Tait breaks, Girard's reducibility candidates).

Stronger logic $\Leftrightarrow$ richer types $\Leftrightarrow$ more terminating programs.